THE MASTERMIND COACHING CLASSES

Revision Notes

Class 10 · Social Science

Geography, Political Science (Ch 11-15) · CBSE / RBSE Syllabus

HOW TO USE THESE NOTES

Each chapter follows the textbook's own order of sections, so you can read straight through. Bold words are keywords you must be able to define. Tables compare and classify; shaded boxes hold definitions, formulas and key facts. The navy Key Takeaways box at the end of every chapter is your last-two-minutes revision.

CH.	CHAPTER TITLE	CORE THEME
11	Manufacturing Industries	Manufacturing: importance, classification, major industries and pollution
12	Lifelines of National Economy	Transport, communication and trade as the lifelines of the economy
13	Power-sharing	Belgium and Sri Lanka, why power sharing is desirable, and its forms
14	Federalism	Federal division of power, Indian federalism, language policy and decentralisation
15	Gender, Religion and Caste	Social divisions and how they shape politics: gender, religion and caste

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CHAPTER 11 · GEOGRAPHY · CH 6

Manufacturing Industries

Manufacturing turns raw materials into goods of higher value. It creates jobs, earns foreign exchange and removes poverty and regional imbalance. This chapter classifies industries, studies the textile, steel, aluminium, chemical, fertiliser, cement, automobile and IT industries, and the pollution and control measures they involve.

Big Questions

- Why is manufacturing called the backbone of development?
- How are industries classified?
- Where are the major industries located?
- How do industries pollute and how can this be controlled?

Importance of Manufacturing

- It helps modernise agriculture by providing machines, fertilisers and pesticides, and reduces the heavy dependence of people on agricultural income by providing jobs in secondary and tertiary sectors.
- It reduces unemployment and poverty and brings down regional disparities by establishing industries in tribal and backward areas.
- Export of manufactured goods expands trade and brings in **foreign exchange**.
- Countries that transform raw materials into a wider range of valuable finished goods are prosperous. Agriculture and industry are **not separate**: agro-industries boost agricultural production and competitiveness.

The contribution of manufacturing to GDP was almost stagnant at about **17 per cent** for a long time, compared with 25-35 per cent in East Asian economies. The **National Manufacturing Competitiveness Council (NMCC)** was set up to improve the growth of manufacturing; the target is to raise the share to 25 per cent.

Classification of Industries

Basis	Types
Source of raw materials	Agro-based (cotton, woollen, jute, silk, rubber, sugar, tea, coffee, edible oil); mineral-based (iron and steel, cement, aluminium, machine tools, petrochemicals)
Role	Basic or key industries (supply to others, e.g. iron and steel, copper smelting); consumer industries (sugar, toothpaste, paper)
Capital investment	Small scale (investment up to a limit) and large scale
Ownership	Public sector (BHEL, SAIL), private sector (TISCO, Bajaj Auto), joint sector (Oil India Ltd), cooperative sector (sugar mills in Maharashtra, coir in Kerala)
Bulk and weight of raw material and finished goods	Heavy industries (iron and steel) and light industries (electrical)

Major Industries

Industry	Key points
Cotton textiles	Ancient industry in India; handspun and handwoven; first successful mill was set up in **Mumbai (1854)**; spinning is in Maharashtra, Gujarat, Tamil Nadu; early concentration due to local cotton, moist climate, port and market. India's weaving sector, decentralised, is a major employer; India is a leading exporter of cotton yarn. Problems: erratic power supply, outdated machinery, low output of labour and stiff competition from synthetic fibres
Jute textiles	India is the largest producer of raw jute and jute goods and second to Bangladesh in export; most mills are in the **Hugli basin** (West Bengal); factors: proximity of jute-producing areas, inexpensive water transport, railways, roadways, abundant water, cheap labour. Challenges: stiff competition from synthetic substitutes and from Bangladesh, Brazil, Philippines, Egypt and Thailand; demand for jute bags in packaging has been promoted by the government
Sugar	Second largest producer in the world after Brazil; mills in Uttar Pradesh, Maharashtra, Karnataka, Tamil Nadu, Andhra Pradesh, Gujarat; seasonal, so cooperatives suit; shift to the south and west because of higher sucrose content and longer crushing season
Iron and steel	Basic industry as it provides raw materials for others; heavy, so located near raw materials; inputs are iron ore, coking coal, limestone, manganese and others in a ratio of about 4 : 2 : 1. **Chotanagpur plateau** has the advantage of cheap iron ore, high-grade raw materials, cheap labour and good market. Plants at Jamshedpur (TISCO, private), Bhilai, Durgapur, Rourkela, Bokaro (SAIL, public), Visakhapatnam, Salem, Bhadravati. Steel is produced in the **mini steel plants** as well. India is among the largest producers of crude steel and the largest producer of sponge iron; per capita consumption is low
Aluminium smelting	Second most important metallurgical industry; light, resistant to corrosion, good conductor; mixed with other metals; used in aircraft, utensils, wires; bauxite is bulky; needs regular power supply and assured bauxite. Plants in Odisha, West Bengal, Kerala, Uttar Pradesh, Chhattisgarh, Maharashtra and Tamil Nadu
Chemical	Includes organic (petrochemicals, used in synthetic fibres, plastics, dyes, drugs) and inorganic (sulphuric acid, nitric acid, alkalis, soda ash, caustic soda) chemicals; rapidly growing and diversified; contributes about 3 per cent of GDP
Fertiliser	Nitrogenous (urea), phosphatic and complex; India is the third largest producer of nitrogenous fertilisers; plants in Gujarat, Uttar Pradesh, Punjab, Tamil Nadu, Kerala and Maharashtra; the Green Revolution raised demand
Cement	Needs bulky, heavy raw materials: limestone, silica, alumina and gypsum; coal and electric power; the first plant was set up in **Chennai in 1904**; after decontrol in 1989 the industry expanded; plants in Gujarat near ports for exports
Automobile	Trucks, buses, cars, motorcycles, scooters, three-wheelers; liberalisation and FDI after 1991 increased production; centres around Delhi-Gurugram, Mumbai-Pune, Chennai, Kolkata, Lucknow, Indore, Hyderabad, Jamshedpur and Bengaluru
Information technology and electronics	Includes transistor sets, TVs, telephones, computers; **Bengaluru** is the electronic capital of India; other centres Mumbai, Delhi, Hyderabad, Pune, Chennai, Kolkata, Lucknow, Coimbatore. The IT industry creates jobs, especially for women, and earns foreign exchange through software and BPO exports

Industrial Pollution and Environmental Degradation

Type	Cause and effect
Air	Gases such as sulphur dioxide and carbon monoxide, smoke from chemical and paper factories and brick kilns, burning of fossil fuels; harm health
Water	Dumping of organic and inorganic wastes, effluents, dyes, detergents, pesticides, fertilisers, heat from thermal plants; hot water kills aquatic life
Land	Dumping of solid waste, fly ash, and slag degrade soil
Noise	Machinery, generators, drills; hearing loss, increase in blood pressure, irritability

IMPORTANT

Thermal pollution occurs when hot water from factories and power plants is drained into rivers and ponds before cooling. **Taj Mahal** is threatened by the **Mathura refinery** and other industries, as acid rain (sulphur dioxide) damages the marble.

▸ Control measures

- Minimise use of water by reusing and recycling in two or more successive stages, harvest rainwater, and treat hot water and effluents before releasing them into rivers.
- Use particulate matter-capturing devices like electrostatic precipitators, scrubbers, fabric filters and inertial separators; install smoke stacks and use oil or gas instead of coal.
- Use generators with silencers, machinery redesign, soundproof equipment and noise absorbing material.
- **NTPC** has adopted environment-friendly measures: afforestation, ash utilisation, reuse of waste and compliance with environmental standards.

Quick Revision: Likely Exam Questions

Likely question	Model answer
Why is manufacturing the backbone of development?	It creates jobs, earns foreign exchange, supports agriculture and reduces poverty.
Where was the first modern cotton mill set up?	Mumbai, 1854.
Why are jute mills in the Hugli basin?	Nearby jute, cheap water transport, water, labour and railways.
Name the inputs of the iron and steel industry.	Iron ore, coking coal, limestone, manganese.
Which is the electronic capital of India?	Bengaluru.
What is thermal pollution?	Rise in water temperature due to hot discharges.
Name two measures to reduce industrial pollution.	Treat effluents before discharge; use precipitators and recycling of water.

★ KEY TAKEAWAYS

- Manufacturing drives **growth, jobs and exports**; the NMCC targets a 25 per cent GDP share.
- Industries are classified by raw material, role, investment and ownership.
- Key industries are **textiles, jute, sugar, steel, aluminium, chemicals, fertiliser, cement, automobile and IT**.
- The industry causes **air, water, land and noise pollution**.
- Recycling, treatment, filters and cleaner fuels can control pollution.

CHAPTER 12 · GEOGRAPHY · CH 7

Lifelines of National Economy

Resources become useful only when they reach people and industries. Transport, communication and trade link producers with consumers and regions with one another, and so act as the arteries of the economy. This chapter studies roads, railways, pipelines, waterways, ports, airways, communication, trade and tourism.

Big Questions

- Why are transport and communication called lifelines?
- How do roads, railways, pipelines, waterways and airways differ?
- What is the role of trade and tourism?

Transport

Movement of goods and services as well as people over space is called transport. The pace of development of a country depends on the production of goods and services and their movement; the means include land, water and air, and today **transport, communication and trade** are complementary.

▸ Roadways

- India has one of the largest road networks in the world, over 60 lakh km at present. Roads are cheaper to construct than railways, can negotiate steep slopes, link remote areas, are suitable for short distances and are important for door-to-door service.
- Roads are classified by capacity: **Golden Quadrilateral Super Highways**, National Highways, State Highways, District roads, Other roads and **Border roads**.
- The **Golden Quadrilateral** links the four metropolitan cities Delhi, Kolkata, Chennai and Mumbai by six-lane super highways; it is about 5,846 km long and is managed by the **National Highways Authority of India (NHAI)**. The **North-South Corridor** connects **Srinagar** to **Kanyakumari**, and the **East-West Corridor** connects **Silchar (Assam)** to **Porbandar (Gujarat)**.
- **National Highways** link extreme parts of the country, constructed and maintained by the **Central Public Works Department (CPWD)**; **State Highways** link state capitals with district headquarters, maintained by the state PWD; **District Roads** link district headquarters with other places; **Other roads** include rural roads under the **Pradhan Mantri Gram Sadak Yojana (PMGSY)**; **Border roads** are built by the **Border Roads Organisation (BRO, 1960)** in remote areas such as the north and north-east, to develop and secure borders.
- Limits: road density in the north-eastern states is low; roads are congested and many bridges and culverts are narrow.

▸ Railways

- Railways are the principal mode of transport for freight and passengers in India; they also make it possible to conduct multifarious activities such as business, sightseeing, pilgrimage and transporting goods over long distances. The first train ran from **Mumbai to Thane in 1853**.
- The network runs on routes of about 67,000 km and is divided into zones. Railway track densities are highest in the northern plains (with extensive flat land and high population density). The Himalayan mountains, hilly terrains of the peninsula, the Thar desert and the forested tracts of Madhya Pradesh, Chhattisgarh, Odisha and Jharkhand are not favourable to railways.

- The **Konkan Railway** connecting Mumbai to Mangalore is an engineering achievement; in the Himalayas, narrow-gauge lines like Kalka-Shimla and Darjeeling help tourism.

▸ Pipelines

Pipelines transport crude oil, petroleum products and natural gas from oil fields to refineries and fertiliser factories; solids can be transported as slurry. Initial cost is high but running cost is minimal; it rules out transhipment losses and delays. Major pipelines: Naharkatiya (Assam) to Barauni (Bihar) through Guwahati; **Hazira-Vijaipur-Jagdishpur (HVJ)** gas pipeline; Mumbai High to Koyali (Gujarat); Salaya to Mathura.

▸ Waterways

Waterways are the cheapest means of transport, fuel-efficient and eco-friendly, useful for heavy and bulky goods. India has about 14,500 km of navigable waterways; **National Waterways** are declared by the government.

Waterway	Stretch
NW-1	Ganga: Prayagraj (Allahabad) to Haldia, 1,620 km
NW-2	Brahmaputra: Sadiya to Dhubri, 891 km
NW-3	West Coast Canal in Kerala: Kottapuram to Kollam, with Udyogmandal and Champakkara canals, 205 km
NW-4	Kakinada-Puducherry stretch of canals, with parts of the Godavari and Krishna rivers

Major ports: Kandla (Gujarat, a tidal port), Mumbai (the biggest port), **Jawaharlal Nehru Port (Nhava Sheva)** to relieve Mumbai, Marmagao (Goa), New Mangalore, Kochi, Tuticorin, **Chennai (one of the oldest artificial ports)**, Visakhapatnam (deepest landlocked port), Paradip (Odisha) and Kolkata (riverine port) with **Haldia** built to relieve congestion.

▸ Airways

Air travel is the fastest, most comfortable and prestigious mode of transport; it can cover difficult terrain and long distances in less time. Nationalised in 1953, the national carrier is **Air India**; **Pawan Hans** provides helicopter services to the Oil and Natural Gas Corporation and to remote areas such as the North-east, and to Jammu and Kashmir, Himachal Pradesh and Uttarakhand. Air transport is vital for the north-eastern states.

Communication

- Personal communication (post, telegram, telephone, mobile, internet) and mass communication (radio, television, newspapers, films).
- The **Indian postal network** is the largest in the world; cards and envelopes are first class mail, and books, newspapers and periodicals are second class. Mails are carried by rail and air.
- India has one of the largest telecom networks in Asia; STD, ISD and mobile services link even rural areas. The use of **internet** has transformed communication and e-commerce.

International Trade

- The exchange of goods among people, states and countries is **trade**. Trade between two countries is international trade, which may take place via sea, air or land routes. **Advancement of international trade of a country is an index of its economic prosperity.**
- **Balance of trade**: the difference between exports and imports. If exports exceed imports, it is favourable; if imports exceed exports, unfavourable.

- India's exports: gems and jewellery, chemicals, engineering goods, software, textiles, agricultural goods and petroleum products; imports: petroleum and crude, pearls, precious stones, fertilisers, machinery, gold and edible oils. India's main trade partners include the USA, China, the UAE, Saudi Arabia and the European Union.
- **Software exports** have boomed since the 1990s.

Tourism as a Trade

- Millions of foreign tourists visit India every year, and domestic tourism is far larger. Tourism provides employment to millions directly, promotes national integration, supports local handicrafts and cultural heritage, and helps international understanding.
- Types: heritage, medical, adventure, cultural and business tourism; India is known for its **medical tourism**.

Quick Revision: Likely Exam Questions

Likely question	Model answer
Why are transport and communication lifelines?	They link producers, markets and people and speed up development.
What is the Golden Quadrilateral?	Six-lane highway joining Delhi, Kolkata, Chennai and Mumbai, built by NHAI.
Name the North-South and East-West corridors.	Srinagar-Kanyakumari and Silchar-Porbandar.
What is NW-1?	Ganga waterway from Prayagraj to Haldia.
Which port is the biggest in India?	Mumbai.
What is balance of trade?	Difference between value of exports and imports.
Name one advantage of pipelines.	Low running cost and no transhipment losses.

★ KEY TAKEAWAYS

- Transport, communication and trade are the **lifelines** of the economy.
- The **Golden Quadrilateral** and the North-South and East-West corridors are key road links.
- Railways, pipelines, waterways (**NW-1, NW-2, NW-3**) and airways each serve distinct needs.
- India's postal and telecom networks are among the largest.
- Trade balance and tourism reflect economic prosperity.

CHAPTER 13 · POLITICAL SCIENCE · CH 1

Power-sharing

A democracy survives when power is shared among different groups instead of being held by a majority alone. Two contrasting stories, Belgium and Sri Lanka, show how accommodation brings peace while majority domination leads to conflict. The chapter then explains why power sharing is desirable and the forms it takes.

Big Questions

- What happened in Belgium and Sri Lanka?
- Why is power sharing desirable?
- What are the forms of power sharing?

Belgium and Sri Lanka

▸ Belgium

- A small country in Europe, with a population a little over one crore. Ethnic composition: **59 per cent** live in the **Flemish region** and speak **Dutch**; **40 per cent** live in the **Wallonia region** and speak **French**; **1 per cent** speak **German**. In the capital **Brussels**, **80 per cent** speak French and **20 per cent** Dutch.
- The French-speaking minority was rich and powerful. The Dutch-speaking community, which got the benefit of economic development and education much later, resented this. This led to tensions between the two communities, especially in Brussels.
- The Belgian leaders recognised the existence of regional differences and cultural diversities and, between **1970 and 1993**, amended the constitution four times to work out an arrangement.
- Features of the **Belgian model:** the Constitution prescribes that the number of Dutch- and French-speaking ministers shall be equal in the central government; special laws require the support of majority of members from each linguistic group; state governments are not subordinate to the central government; **Brussels** has a separate government in which both communities have equal representation; and a third kind of government, the **community government**, is elected by people belonging to one language community (Dutch, French and German-speaking) wherever they live, with power over cultural, educational and language-related issues.

▸ Sri Lanka

- An island nation, just off the southern coast of Tamil Nadu; independent in **1948**. About **74 per cent** are **Sinhala**-speakers and about **18 per cent Tamil**-speakers: of these, 13 per cent are **Sri Lankan Tamils** and 5 per cent **Indian Tamils** (descendants of plantation workers). The rest include Christians (both Sinhala- and Tamil-speaking) and Muslims.
- In **1956** an Act was passed to recognise **Sinhala as the only official language**, disregarding Tamil. Governments followed preferential policies that favoured Sinhala applicants for university positions and government jobs; a new constitution stipulated that the state shall protect and foster **Buddhism**.
- These measures increased the feeling of alienation among Sri Lankan Tamils; their demand for **autonomy** and recognition grew into a **civil war**, beginning in the 1980s, which caused loss of thousands of lives and affected the country's social, cultural and economic life until it ended in **2009**.

	Belgium	Sri Lanka
Majority	Dutch speakers (59%) but accommodated French minority	Sinhala speakers (74%) dominated Tamil minority
Approach	Accommodation, shared power	Majoritarianism
Result	Peace and stability	Civil war, mistrust

DEFINITION

Majoritarianism is the belief that the majority community should be able to rule a country in whichever way it wants, by disregarding the wishes and needs of the minority.

Why Power Sharing Is Desirable

- **Prudential reasons:** power sharing helps to reduce the possibility of conflict between social groups; since social conflict often leads to violence and political instability, power sharing is a good way to ensure the stability of political order. Imposing the will of the majority in the short run may look attractive but undermines the unity of the nation in the long run.
- **Moral reasons:** power sharing is the very spirit of democracy. A democratic rule involves sharing power with those affected by its exercise, and who have to live with its effects. People have a right to be consulted on how they are to be governed; a legitimate government is one where citizens, through participation, acquire a stake in the system.

Forms of Power Sharing

Form	Meaning	Example
Horizontal distribution	Power is shared among different organs of government: legislature, executive and judiciary, so that none exercises unlimited power; each checks the others. This is called a **system of checks and balances**	Ministers are answerable to the legislature; judges can review laws
Vertical distribution	Power shared among governments at different levels: a central government for the entire country and governments at the provincial or regional level. Also called **federal division of power**; extends to local governments	Union, state and local governments in India
Among social groups	Community government in Belgium; **reserved constituencies** in legislatures and administration for socially weaker sections and women	Reserved seats for SC and ST in India's legislatures
Among political parties, pressure groups and movements	Competition and coalition among parties; interest groups such as traders, industrialists, farmers and industrial workers also influence decision-making through participation in committees or exerting pressure	Coalition governments

IMPORTANT

Power sharing is not a weakness. It reduces conflict, secures democracy and gives legitimacy. Belgium shows that sharing power builds unity; Sri Lanka shows that majority domination breeds strife.

Quick Revision: Likely Exam Questions

Likely question	Model answer
What is the ethnic composition of Belgium?	59% Dutch (Flemish), 40% French (Wallonia), 1% German; in Brussels 80% French and 20% Dutch.
What was the 1956 Act in Sri Lanka?	It made Sinhala the sole official language.
What is majoritarianism?	Rule by the majority community disregarding minorities.
What is community government?	Belgian government elected by a language community, handling cultural and educational matters.
Give two prudential reasons for power sharing.	Reduces conflict and ensures stable political order.
What is horizontal power sharing?	Distribution among legislature, executive and judiciary.
What is a system of checks and balances?	Each organ of government checks the others.

★ KEY TAKEAWAYS

- Belgium **accommodated** linguistic groups; Sri Lanka's **majoritarian** policies led to civil war.
- Power sharing is desirable for **prudential** (stability) and **moral** (democratic spirit) reasons.
- Power can be shared **horizontally**, **vertically**, among **social groups** and among **parties and movements**.
- Checks and balances prevent concentration of power.
- Accommodation strengthens national unity.

CHAPTER 14 · POLITICAL SCIENCE · CH 2

Federalism

Federalism is vertical power sharing between a central authority and constituent units. This chapter explains what federalism means, how India's federation works, the role of linguistic states and the language policy, centre-state relations, and how power is further shared with panchayats and municipalities.

Big Questions

- What is federalism and what are its features?
- How is federalism practised in India?
- Why was decentralisation needed and how does local government work?

What Is Federalism?

DEFINITION

Federalism is a system of government in which power is divided between a central authority and various constituent units of the country. Usually, a federation has two levels of government: one for the entire country, and the other at the level of provinces or states.

	Unitary system	Federal system
Levels	One level or sub-units subordinate to the centre	Two or more levels with their own powers
Central government	Can pass orders to provincial government	Cannot order the state governments to do something; states have power of their own
Example	Sri Lanka (for practical purposes a unitary system)	India, USA, Switzerland, Belgium

▸ Key features

1. There are **two or more levels** of government.
2. Different tiers govern the same citizens, but each has its **own jurisdiction** in specific matters of legislation, taxation and administration.
3. The jurisdictions of the respective levels are **specified in the Constitution**, so the existence and authority of each tier is constitutionally guaranteed.
4. The fundamental provisions of the Constitution cannot be unilaterally changed by one level of government; such changes require the consent of both levels.
5. **Courts** have the power to interpret the Constitution and the powers of different levels of government; the **Supreme Court** acts as an umpire.
6. **Sources of revenue** for each level are clearly specified to ensure its financial autonomy.
7. Federations have a dual objective: to safeguard and promote **unity of the country**, while at the same time accommodating regional diversity.

Type	How it arises	Examples
Coming together federation	Independent states come together on their own to form a bigger unit and retain identity; equal powers to states	USA, Switzerland, Australia
Holding together federation	A large country decides to divide its power between the national government and states; the central government tends to be more powerful	India, Spain, Belgium

What Makes India a Federal Country?

- The Constitution originally provided for a two-tier system of government: the Union government (central) and the State governments. A third tier of federalism was added later through **panchayats and municipalities**. India now has **28 states and 8 Union Territories** (as of the changes of 2019-2020).
- Constitution has clearly provided a **three-fold distribution** of legislative powers between the Union and State governments.

List	Subjects	Who legislates
Union List	Subjects of national importance: defence of the country, foreign affairs, banking, communications and currency; need uniform policy	Union Government alone
State List	Subjects of state and local importance: police, trade, commerce, agriculture and irrigation	State Governments alone
Concurrent List	Subjects of common interest to both: education, forest, trade unions, marriage, adoption and succession	Both; if their laws conflict, the **Union law prevails**

Subjects that do not fall in any list (**residuary subjects**, such as computer software that came after the Constitution) fall within the Union's jurisdiction. Not all units enjoy equal status: some units, such as **Delhi** and **Chandigarh**, are Union Territories, and the Union government has special powers in running them. Jammu and Kashmir and Ladakh became Union Territories in 2019. Sharing of power can be changed only if both Houses of Parliament pass it by two-thirds majority and half of the state legislatures approve.

▸ How is federalism practised?

- **Linguistic states:** The creation of linguistic states was the first and a major test for democratic politics in India. After 1947 the boundaries of several old states were changed so that people who spoke the same language lived in the same state (for example Andhra Pradesh and Karnataka, with **Maharashtra and Gujarat** formed in 1960). Some leaders feared this would split the country, but experience showed that linguistic states made India **more united** and made administration easier. Some states were created on the basis of culture, ethnicity or geography, such as **Nagaland** (1963), **Uttarakhand** and **Jharkhand** (both 2000).
- **Language policy:** The Constitution did not give the status of national language to any one language. **Hindi** was identified as the **official language** (about 40 per cent speak Hindi as mother tongue); there are **22 Scheduled Languages**; **English** is used with Hindi for official purposes. Central leaders were careful in not imposing Hindi on non-Hindi states; the Tamil Nadu agitation against Hindi is an example. Sri Lanka's treatment of Tamil is a contrast.
- **Centre-state relations:** Earlier, with the Congress ruling at the Centre and most states, state governments were not autonomous. After 1990, the rise of regional political parties and **coalition governments** at the Centre meant that the ruling party at the Centre had to share power and respect the autonomy of state governments; the Supreme Court's **S. R. Bommai judgement (1994)** made it difficult for the Centre to dismiss state governments arbitrarily.

Decentralisation in India

When power is taken away from Central and State governments and given to **local government**, it is called **decentralisation**. The basic idea behind decentralisation is that there are a large number of problems and issues which are best settled at the local level, and people have better knowledge of problems in their localities.

- In **1992**, the Constitution was amended (**73rd and 74th Amendments**) to make the third-tier of democracy more powerful and effective: elections to local bodies are held regularly; seats are reserved for **SCs, STs and OBCs**; at least **one-third of all positions** are reserved for **women**; an independent institution called the **State Election Commission** conducts panchayat and municipal elections; State governments are required to share some powers and revenue with local bodies.
- **Rural:** The **Gram Sabha** is the body of all the voters in the village. **Gram Panchayat** has a president (**sarpanch**) and ward members (**panch**). A few panchayats together form a **Panchayat Samiti** (block or mandal); all the Panchayat Samitis in a district together constitute the **Zilla Parishad**.
- **Urban: Municipalities** in towns and **Municipal Corporations** in big cities, headed by a **Mayor** in a corporation and a **Municipal Chairperson** in a municipality.
- Local government increases people's participation, so that people's voice is heard; yet many state governments have not transferred sufficient powers and funds.

Quick Revision: Likely Exam Questions

Likely question	Model answer
Define federalism.	System dividing power between a central authority and constituent units.
Differentiate coming together and holding together federations.	Coming together: independent states join (USA); holding together: a large country divides power (India).
Name the three lists of subjects.	Union, State and Concurrent.
Who has power over residuary subjects?	The Union Government.
Which languages are official?	Hindi is official language; there are 22 scheduled languages; English is also used.
What is decentralisation?	Sharing power with local governments.
What changes did the 73rd and 74th amendments make?	Regular local elections, reservation including one-third for women, State Election Commission.

★ KEY TAKEAWAYS

- Federalism divides power between **two or more levels** of government, with courts as umpire.
- Federations are **coming together** (USA) or **holding together** (India).
- Powers are distributed through **Union, State and Concurrent lists**; residuary powers rest with the Union.
- **Linguistic states** and a flexible **language policy** helped India's federal unity.
- **Panchayats and municipalities** were made the third tier by the 73rd and 74th Amendments (1992).

CHAPTER 15 · POLITICAL SCIENCE · CH 3

Gender, Religion and Caste

Social differences of gender, religion and caste affect politics in every democracy. Politics can help to reduce inequalities or can be used to deepen divisions. This chapter shows how each division operates in India, what the Constitution says and what citizens should guard against.

Big Questions

- How does gender division affect politics?
- What is communalism and a secular state?
- How do caste and politics interact?

Gender and Politics

Gender division is a form of hierarchical social division based on gender, but it is generally not recognised in politics as a division. It is mostly based not on biology but on social expectations and stereotypes.

- **Public/private division:** Boys and girls are brought up to believe that the main responsibility of women is housework and bringing up children. This is reflected in a **sexual division of labour** in most families: women do all work inside the home, such as cooking, cleaning, washing, tailoring and looking after children, while men do the work outside. Women also work outside the home (fetching water, collecting fuel, working in fields, as domestic helpers or in offices), but this work is not valued and does not get recognition.
- Women do not have equal chances: **literacy rate** among women is only about 54 per cent against 76 per cent for men (figures given in the NCERT text); girls drop out because parents spend more on boys' education; an Indian woman works about one hour more than a man every day, yet much of this work is unpaid; women are paid less than men even for the same work, though the **Equal Remuneration Act, 1976** requires equal wages for equal work; the **child sex ratio** fell to just **919 girls per 1000 boys** (Census 2011) because of sex-selective abortion.
- Many women's movements have demanded equal rights in personal and family life, in education and in the workplace; feminist movements have raised the issue of women's political representation. In countries like **Sweden, Norway and Finland**, the participation of women in public life is high.
- **Political representation:** In India, women are far from adequately represented in legislatures: the share of elected women in the Lok Sabha touched **14.36 per cent** of its strength for the first time in 2019, while their share in state assemblies is **less than 5 per cent**; India is in the bottom group of nations in this respect. One way to ensure this is to have **reservation**: **one-third of seats** in panchayats and municipalities are reserved for women (more than 10 lakh elected women representatives). The **Nari Shakti Vandan Adhiniyam (2023)** provides for **33 per cent reservation of seats for women** in the Lok Sabha, State Legislative Assemblies and the Delhi Assembly.

NOTE

Feminist movements and laws such as the **Equal Remuneration Act, 1976** have attempted to secure equal pay; women in India work for long hours but their contribution is under-counted.

Religion, Communalism and Politics

Religious differences are not the same as communalism. Religion can be part of politics, e.g. when it is concerned with values and ethics: **Gandhiji** said that religion can never be separated from politics, by which he meant moral values drawn from all religions, not any particular community. Human rights groups have demanded that the government take special steps to prevent communal riots and protect religious minorities; women's movements argue that family laws of all religions discriminate against women.

> **DEFINITION**
>
> **Communalism** is the belief that religion is the principal basis of social community; the followers of a particular religion must belong to one community, their fundamental interests are the same, and any difference they have is irrelevant or trivial to that community. It leads to the idea that people of different religions cannot belong to the same social community.

- **Forms of communalism:** in everyday beliefs (religious prejudices, stereotypes, belief in the superiority of one's religion); in a political form, by using sacred symbols and religious leaders and seeking votes on religious grounds; by **communal violence** and riots, as during the **Partition** in 1947 and in later years.
- **Secular state:** The makers of India's Constitution chose the **secular** path. There is **no official religion**; the state does not give a special status to any religion; people are free to follow, practise and propagate any religion or not follow any; the Constitution prohibits **discrimination** on grounds of religion; yet the state can intervene in religious matters to ensure equality, e.g. by banning untouchability.

Caste and Politics

- **Caste inequalities:** In most societies, some form of social division and social inequalities exist; in India caste has been unique through its **hereditary occupational division** sanctioned by rituals. Members of the same caste group are supposed to form a social community that practises the same or similar occupation, marries within the caste and excludes members of other caste groups from eating with them.
- **Reformers and thinkers: Jyotirao Phule, Mahatma Gandhi, B. R. Ambedkar and Periyar E. V. Ramaswami Naicker** advocated and worked to establish a society in which caste inequalities are absent.
- **Changes:** Partly due to their efforts and partly due to other social and economic changes such as **urbanisation, growth of literacy and education, occupational mobility** and weakening of the position of landlords, the old notions of caste hierarchy are breaking down. The Constitution prohibited any caste-based discrimination and laid the foundations of policies to reverse the injustices; yet caste is still in the way people marry, and untouchability has not ended completely.

▸ Caste in politics

- When parties choose candidates for elections, they take into account the caste composition of the electorate; governments are formed with a mix of castes; parties and candidates make appeals to caste sentiment, and universal adult franchise and the principle of ‘one person one vote’ have forced political leaders to gain support of various groups.
- Politics works to bring **under-privileged communities** into the political arena, and many castes, including Dalits, have gained greater voice and power. Caste has also opened the way for people to claim their share.
- **Limits:** No parliamentary constituency has a clear majority of one caste, so parties cannot win by winning one caste; voters have other interests too, such as the performance of the government and the party they prefer, and many candidates win by gaining support across castes.
- **Politicisation of caste** can lead to tension, violence and divisiveness, and diverts attention from vital issues like poverty, development and corruption; hence caste-based politics is not good for a democracy.

Division	Positive side	Danger
Gender	Women's movements, reservation in local bodies, Nari Shakti Vandan Adhiniyam	Patriarchy, low representation, wage gap
Religion	Ethics and value-based politics, secular Constitution	Communalism, riots, majority-minority conflict
Caste	Voice for Dalits and OBCs, social reform, reservation	Casteism, violence, neglect of development issues

Quick Revision: Likely Exam Questions

Likely question	Model answer
What is sexual division of labour?	Work in the home done by women, and work outside done by men.
Why is women's representation in legislatures low?	Social attitudes, family duties and a political system that is male-dominated.
What is communalism?	Belief that religion is the main basis of community and politics.
What does a secular state mean?	No official religion, equality of all faiths, and no discrimination.
Who worked to end caste inequalities?	Phule, Gandhi, Ambedkar and Periyar.
Why are caste-based politics limited?	No constituency has a single-caste majority; voters also look at party and candidate.
What does the Nari Shakti Vandan Adhiniyam provide?	One-third reservation for women in Lok Sabha and state assemblies.

★ KEY TAKEAWAYS

- Gender division is shaped by social roles, not biology; women are under-represented in politics.
- **Communalism** uses religion for political ends; India has a **secular** Constitution.
- Caste is a social hierarchy that has been changed by reform, education and the Constitution.
- Caste and politics interact: they help voice of the marginalised but can divide society.
- A healthy democracy uses social differences for inclusion and not conflict.